

Chapter 1: Introduction

Object Space vs. Image Space

Space	Description
Object Space	Continuous abstract space where shapes are defined using coordinates
Image Space	Discrete pixel grid (display monitor) where the image is produced

Key Areas

- **Geometric Representation** — defining objects using coordinates (vertices, etc.)
- **Transformation** — mapping objects to image space using matrices (controls position, orientation, size)
- **Scan Conversion** — converting continuous figures to discrete pixels (rasterization)
- **Anti-aliasing** — reducing the "staircase" distortion caused by scan conversion

2D Graphics Pipeline

$$\text{Object Coordinates} \rightarrow \text{World Coordinates} \rightarrow \text{Device Coordinates}$$

3D Graphics Concepts

- **Projection** — mapping 3D objects onto a 2D display surface
- **Hidden Surface Removal** — hiding surfaces obscured from the viewer
- **Illumination & Shading** — simulating light reflection for realism
 - *Local illumination* — direct light only
 - *Global illumination* — includes reflected light and transparency

Allied Fields

- **Image Processing** — pixel-based operations on existing images (not synthesizing from scratch)
- **Computer-Human Interaction** — interfaces and logical input devices

Chapter 2: Image Representation

Digital Image Basics

Term	Definition
Resolution	Number of pixels per unit length (e.g., pixels per inch)
Aspect Ratio	Width ÷ Height (e.g., 1920 × 1080 → 16:9)

Color Models

RGB (Additive — for displays)

$$\text{Color} = (R, G, B), \quad R, G, B \in [0, 1]$$

- Black = (0,0,0), White = (1,1,1)
- The **gray axis** is the diagonal from black to white

CMY (Subtractive — for printers)

$$C = 1-R, \quad M = 1-G, \quad Y = 1-B$$

Image Representation Methods

Direct Coding

Each pixel stores actual color values.

Type	Bits/pixel	Colors
Binary (B&W)	1	2
Grayscale	8	256
True color (RGB)	24	~16.7 million

Lookup Table (Color Map)

Each pixel stores an **index** into a color table.

- 8-bit pixel → 256-entry table, each entry = 24-bit RGB
- **Memory formula:** $\text{Entries} \times 3 \text{ bytes}$
 - Example: 2-byte pixel → 65,536 entries → $65,536 \times 3 = \mathbf{196,608 \text{ bytes}}$

Output Devices

CRT Monitors

- Electron guns strike phosphor-coated screen → emits light
- Requires refresh (~60 Hz) to avoid flicker
- Uses 3 guns (R, G, B) with shadow masks

Printers (CMYK)

- Paper is white; ink **subtracts** light
- Black ink used separately (cheaper, better quality than mixing C+M+Y)

Techniques to simulate shades:

Technique	Method	Resolution
Halftoning	Varies dot size in a grid	Reduced
Dithering	Threshold matrix decides pixel ON/OFF	Preserved
Error Diffusion	Spreads rounding error to neighbors	Preserved

Dithering rule: Pixel ON if $\text{ImageIntensity}(x,y) > D_n(i,j)$, where $i = x \bmod n$, $j = y \bmod n$

Error Diffusion (Floyd-Steinberg): Distributes quantization error to unprocessed neighbors → smooth gradients without banding.

Image Files

- Structure: **Header** (format, dimensions) + **Image Data**
- Compression: **Run-Length Encoding (RLE)** — e.g., `AAAAAABBBCC` → `(A,6), (B,3), (C,2)`

Exam Math

Q1a: What is quantization?

Quantization is the process of mapping a continuous range of values into a smaller, finite, discrete set. In image representation, it means converting continuous light intensities into discrete digital values — for example, mapping analog color intensity to an 8-bit value in the range 0–255.

Q1b: Maximum memory for 10 images using direct coding (640×520 pixels, 3 bytes/pixel)?

Given:

- Image dimensions: 640 × 520 pixels
- Color depth: 3 bytes per pixel (1 byte each for R, G, B)
- Number of images: 10

Step 1 — Total pixels per image:

$$640 \times 520 = 332,800 \text{ pixels}$$

Step 2 — Memory per image:

$$332,800 \text{ pixels} \times 3 \text{ bytes/pixel} = 998,400 \text{ bytes}$$

Step 3 — Total memory for 10 images:

$$998,400 \times 10 = \boxed{9,984,000 \text{ bytes}}$$

$$\text{Converting: } 9,984,000 \div 1024 = 9,750 \text{ KB} \approx 9.52 \text{ MB}$$

Q1c: How many colors can be stored in a lookup table if each image's index memory must not exceed 500 KB?

Given:

- Image size: $640 \times 520 = 332,800$ pixels (from Q1b)
- Memory limit per image: 500 KB
- Goal: find maximum number of bits per pixel for the index, then find the number of colors

Step 1 — Convert 500 KB to bytes:

$$500 \times 1024 = 512,000 \text{ bytes}$$

Step 2 — Convert bytes to bits:

$$512,000 \times 8 = 4,096,000 \text{ bits}$$

Step 3 — Calculate available bits per pixel:

$$\frac{4,096,000 \text{ bits}}{332,800 \text{ pixels}} \approx 12.307 \text{ bits/pixel}$$

Step 4 — Round down to a whole number (must be integer bit depth):

$$\lfloor 12.307 \rfloor = 12 \text{ bits/pixel}$$

(We round down, not up, to stay within the 500 KB limit.)

Step 5 — Calculate number of representable colors:

$$2^{12} = \boxed{4,096} \text{ colors}$$

Bonus Q: If 2-byte pixel values are used in a 24-bit lookup table, how many bytes does the lookup table occupy?

Given:

- Pixel size: 2 bytes = 16 bits → used as an index
- Each LUT entry: 24-bit color = 3 bytes

Step 1 — Number of LUT entries (one per possible index value):

$$2^{16} = 65,536 \text{ entries}$$

Step 2 — Size of each entry:

$$24 \text{ bits} \div 8 = 3 \text{ bytes per entry}$$

Step 3 — Total LUT size:

$$65,536 \times 3 = \boxed{196,608} \text{ bytes}$$

Chapter 3: Scan Conversion

Scan-Converting a Point

$$X_{\text{pixel}} = \lfloor x + 0.5 \rfloor, \quad Y_{\text{pixel}} = \lfloor y + 0.5 \rfloor$$

Example: Map continuous point $(10.3, 20.7)$ to a pixel.

Step 1 — Add 0.5 to each coordinate:

$$x + 0.5 = 10.3 + 0.5 = 10.8$$

$$y + 0.5 = 20.7 + 0.5 = 21.2$$

Step 2 — Apply floor:

$$X_{\text{pixel}} = \lfloor 10.8 \rfloor = 10, \quad Y_{\text{pixel}} = \lfloor 21.2 \rfloor = 21$$

Result: Pixel plotted at $(10, 21)$

Line Drawing Algorithms

1. Slope-Intercept Method ($y = mx + b$)

Steps:

1. Compute slope: $m = \frac{y_2 - y_1}{x_2 - x_1}$
2. Compute y-intercept: $b = y_1 - m \cdot x_1$
3. For each integer x from x_1 to x_2 : compute $y = mx + b$, round to nearest integer, plot $(x, \text{round}(y))$

Example — Line from (2, 3) to (6, 5):

Step 1 — Calculate slope:

$$m = \frac{5 - 3}{6 - 2} = \frac{2}{4} = 0.5$$

Step 2 — Calculate y-intercept:

$$b = y_1 - m \cdot x_1 = 3 - (0.5 \cdot 2) = 3 - 1 = 2$$

Step 3 — Iterate and compute y for each x (using $y = 0.5x + 2$):

x	Calculation	y (float)	$\text{round}(y)$	Plot
2	$0.5(2) + 2 = 1 + 2$	3.0	3	(2, 3)
3	$0.5(3) + 2 = 1.5 + 2$	3.5	4	(3, 4)
4	$0.5(4) + 2 = 2 + 2$	4.0	4	(4, 4)
5	$0.5(5) + 2 = 2.5 + 2$	4.5	5	(5, 5)
6	$0.5(6) + 2 = 3 + 2$	5.0	5	(6, 5)



Advantage



Disadvantage

Simple to understand

Floating-point multiplication every pixel

Direct calculation

Visual gaps when $m > 1$

2. DDA (Digital Differential Analyzer)

Steps:

1. Compute differences: $dx = x_2 - x_1$, $dy = y_2 - y_1$
2. Determine step count: $\text{step} = \max(|dx|, |dy|)$ — ensures no gaps regardless of slope
3. Compute per-step increments: $x_{\text{inc}} = dx / \text{step}$, $y_{\text{inc}} = dy / \text{step}$
4. Initialize: $x = x_1$, $y = y_1$
5. For each iteration: plot $(\text{round}(x), \text{round}(y))$, then $x = x + x_{\text{inc}}$, $y = y + y_{\text{inc}}$

Example — Line from (2, 3) to (6, 5):

Step 1 — Compute differences:

$$dx = 6 - 2 = 4, \quad dy = 5 - 3 = 2$$

Step 2 — Determine step count:

$$\text{step} = \max(|4|, |2|) = \max(4, 2) = 4$$

Step 3 — Compute increments:

$$x_{\text{inc}} = \frac{4}{4} = 1.0, \quad y_{\text{inc}} = \frac{2}{4} = 0.5$$

Step 4 — Initialize: $x = 2.0, y = 3.0$

Step 5 — Iterate (at each step: plot → add increments):

| Iter | x | y | $\text{round}(x)$ | $\text{round}(y)$ | Plot | x_{next} | y_{next} |

Iter	x	y	x_{next}	y_{next}	$\text{round}(x)$ (x)	$\text{round}(y)$ (y)	Plot
0	2.0	3.0	$2.0+1.0=3.0$	$3.0+0.5=3.5$	2	3	(2,3)
1	3.0	3.5	$3.0+1.0=4.0$	$3.5+0.5=4.0$	3	4	(3,4)
2	4.0	4.0	$4.0+1.0=5.0$	$4.0+0.5=4.5$	4	4	(4,4)
3	5.0	4.5	$5.0+1.0=6.0$	$4.5+0.5=5.0$	5	5	(5,5)
4	6.0	5.0	—	—	6	5	(6,5)

✓ Advantage ✗ Disadvantage

No multiplication Still uses floating-point

No gaps in line Cumulative rounding error on long lines

3. Bresenham's Line Algorithm (Integer Only)

Steps (for $m < 1$):

1. Compute: $dx = x_2 - x_1$, $dy = y_2 - y_1$
2. Pre-compute constants: $2dy$ and $2dy - 2dx$
3. Initialize: $x = x_1$, $y = y_1$, $P_0 = 2dy - dx$

4. At each step: plot (x, y) , increment $x = x + 1$, then:
 - If $P_n < 0$: y stays, $P_{n+1} = P_n + 2dy$
 - If $P_n \geq 0$: $y = y + 1$, $P_{n+1} = P_n + 2dy - 2dx$
5. Repeat until $x = x_2$

Example — Line from (2, 3) to (6, 5):

Step 1 — Compute differences:

$$dx = 6 - 2 = 4, \quad dy = 5 - 3 = 2$$

Step 2 — Pre-compute constants:

$$2dy = 2 \times 2 = 4$$

$$2dy - 2dx = 4 - 2(4) = 4 - 8 = -4$$

Step 3 — Initial decision variable:

$$P_0 = 2dy - dx = 4 - 4 = 0$$

Step 4 — Initialize: plot (2, 3), then iterate:

Step	x	y	x_{next}	Action	y_{next}	p	p_{next}
0	2	3	3	y++	4	0	-4
1	3	4	4	y stays	4	-4	0
2	4	4	5	y++	5	0	-4
3	5	5	6	y stays	5	-4	—

Plotted pixels: (2,3), (3,4), (4,4), (5,5), (6,5)

Final pixels plotted: (2,3), (3,4), (4,4), (5,5), (6,5)

For $m \geq 1$ (steep lines):

- The roles of x and y swap compared to $m < 1$.
- Increment y each step, and decide whether to increment x based on P .
- Initial $P_0 = 2dx - dy$.
- If $P < 0$: x stays, $P = P + 2dx$.
- If $P \geq 0$: x increments, $P = P + 2dx - 2dy$.

Memory tip: When slope flips, dx and dy swap in the formulas.

✔ Advantage ✗ Disadvantage

Integer-only (fastest)	More complex to implement for all slopes
No rounding needed	Different cases needed for $m > 1$, negatives

Circle & Ellipse Drawing

8-Way Symmetry (Circles)

Compute one octant ($x \leq y$), mirror to get 8 points:

Octant	Transform	Pixel (from point (2,5))
1	(x, y)	(2, 5)
2	(y, x)	(5, 2)
3	$(-y, x)$	(-5, 2)
4	$(-x, y)$	(-2, 5)
5	$(-x, -y)$	(-2, -5)
6	$(-y, -x)$	(-5, -2)
7	$(y, -x)$	(5, -2)
8	$(x, -y)$	(2, -5)

Ellipses use **4-way symmetry** only — x and y cannot be swapped.

Performance gain: 87.5% fewer calculations for circles; 75% for ellipses.

Bresenham's Circle Algorithm

Initialize: $x = 0$, $y = r$, $d_0 = 3 - 2r$

At each step (while $x \leq y$):

- Plot 8 symmetric points for current (x, y)
- If $d < 0$: y stays, $d = d + 4x + 6$
- If $d \geq 0$: $y = y - 1$, $d = d + 4x - 4y + 10$
- Always: $x = x + 1$

Example — Circle with $r = 5$, centered at $(0,0)$:

Step 1 — Initialize:

$x = 0$, $y = 5$

$d_0 = 3 - 2(5) = 3 - 10 = -7$

Step 2 — Iterate (note: d update uses x and y values *before* incrementing):

Step	x	y	x_{next}	Action	y_{next}	d	d_{next}
Init	0	5	1	$d < 0$	5	-7	-1
1	1	5	2	$d < 0$	5	-1	9
2	2	5	3	$d \geq 0$	4	9	7
3	3	4	4	$d \geq 0$	3	7	13

Stop: next $x = 5 > y = 3$, so first octant is complete.

Points computed (x, y) : $(0,5), (1,5), (2,5), (3,4), (4,3)$ — each is mirrored using 8-way symmetry to produce the full circle.

Midpoint Circle Algorithm

Initialize: $x = 0$, $y = r$, $p_0 = 1 - r$

At each step (while $x \leq y$):

- Plot 8 symmetric points for current (x, y)
- If $p < 0$: y stays, $p = p + 2x + 3$
- If $p \geq 0$: $y = y - 1$, $p = p + 2x - 2y + 5$
- Always: $x = x + 1$

Example — Circle with $r = 5$, centered at $(0,0)$:

Step 1 — Initialize:

$x = 0$, $y = 5$

$p_0 = 1 - r = 1 - 5 = -4$

Step 2 — Iterate (note: p update uses x and y values *before* incrementing x , but *after* decrementing y when applicable):

Step	x	y	x_{next}	Action	y_{next}	p	d_{next}
Init	0	5	1	$p < 0$	5	-4	-1
1	1	5	2	$p < 0$	5	-1	4
2	2	5	3	$p \geq 0$	4	4	3
3	3	4	4	$p \geq 0$	3	3	6

Stop: next $x = 5 > y = 3$, first octant complete.

Points computed: $(0,5), (1,5), (2,5), (3,4), (4,3)$ — mirrored using 8-way symmetry.

Midpoint is more adaptable than Bresenham's Circle — it is the standard method used for ellipses. For ellipses, split the curve into two regions at the point where slope $= -1$.

Scan-Converting Characters (Fonts)

Bitmap (Raster) Fonts

- Store characters as pre-calculated binary grids
- Rendering = copy grid to screen memory (BitBlt)



Advantage



Disadvantage

Extremely fast

Blocky when scaled

✓ Advantage

✗ Disadvantage

Pixel-perfect at native size Separate file per size needed

Outline (Vector) Fonts (e.g., TrueType, OpenType)

- Store mathematical curves (Bézier) and lines
- Rendering pipeline: **Fetch geometry** → **Transform** → **Rasterize boundary** → **Scanline fill** → **Hint**

✓ Advantage

✗ Disadvantage

Infinitely scalable Computationally expensive

| Single file for all sizes | Blurry at small sizes without hinting |

Scan-Converting Arcs, Sectors, Rectangles

Arcs

Three approaches:

1. **Trigonometric:** $x = h + r \cos \theta$, $y = k + r \sin \theta$ — accurate but slow (uses sin/cos)
2. **Polynomial:** $y = \sqrt{r^2 - x^2}$ — uses square roots, no symmetry
3. **Bresenham (avoid for arcs):** Must compute entire circle then check bounds — inefficient, risks infinite loop

Sectors (Pie Slice)

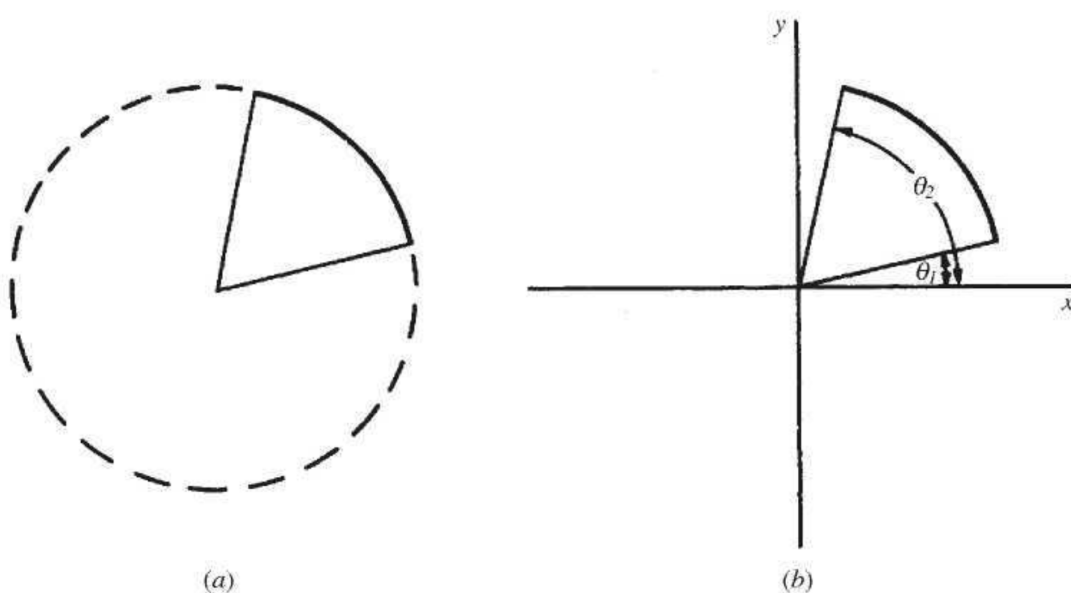


Fig. 3-13

Fig. 3-13: Scan-converting a sector (pie slice): (a) shows the arc and sector, (b) shows the angles and endpoints used for filling.

1. Draw arc from θ_1 to θ_2
2. Calculate endpoints: $(h + r \cos \theta_1, k + r \sin \theta_1)$ and $(h + r \cos \theta_2, k + r \sin \theta_2)$
3. Draw two lines from center to each endpoint (use Bresenham's line)

Rectangle (Axis-aligned)

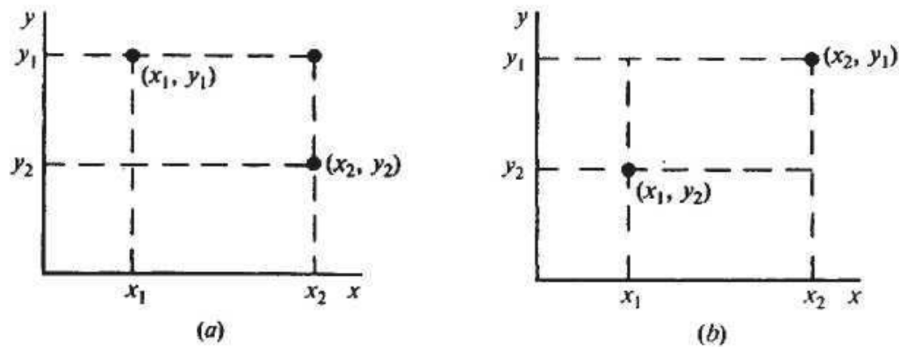


Fig. 3-16

Fig. 3-16: Scan-converting a rectangle: (a) and (b) show how the four corners are used to define the rectangle for filling or drawing edges.

- Input: two opposite corners (x_1, y_1) and (x_2, y_2)
- Derive: (x_1, y_2) and (x_2, y_1)
- Draw 4 edges using any line algorithm

Region Filling

Interior-defined region: A region where filling begins from a seed point inside the boundary and continues outward until the boundary is reached.

Boundary-defined region: A region enclosed by a specific boundary color, where filling begins from a seed point inside the area and continues outward pixel-by-pixel until the specific boundary color is reached.

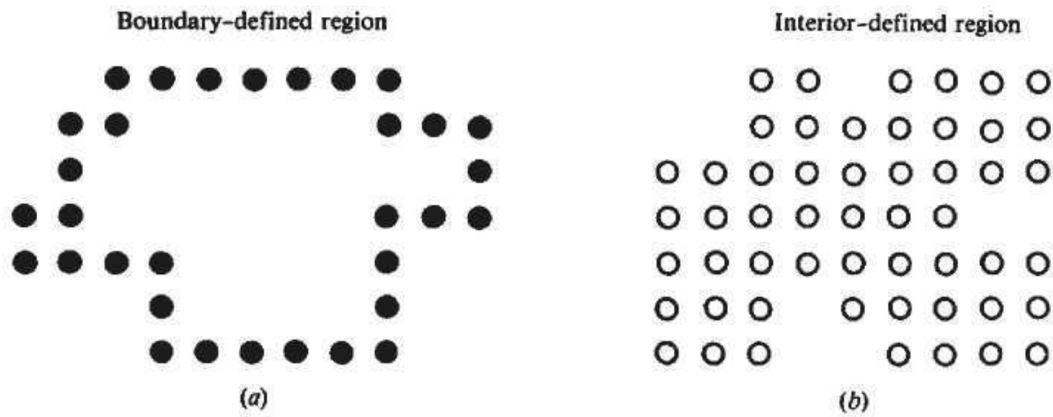


Fig. 3-17

Fig. 3-17: (a) Boundary-defined region: filling is constrained by a boundary color. (b) Interior-defined region: filling spreads outward from a seed point until the boundary is reached.

Pixel Connectivity

Type	Neighbors
4-Connected	Up, Down, Left, Right only
8-Connected	All 8 surrounding pixels (includes diagonals)

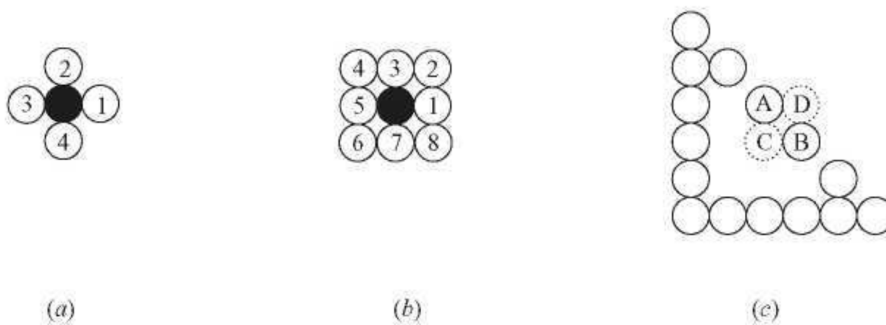


Fig. 3-18 4-connected vs. 8-connected pixels.

Fig. 3-18: (a) 4-connected neighbors: only up, down, left, right. (b) 8-connected neighbors: includes diagonals. (c) Example showing how connectivity affects region filling.

Critical rule: If boundary is 8-connected → fill must be 4-connected, and vice versa (prevents leaking).

1. Boundary-Fill (Recursive)

Used when region is enclosed by a specific **boundary color**.

Steps:

1. Start at seed pixel
2. If pixel = fill color OR boundary color → stop
3. Else: paint pixel with fill color, recurse on neighbors

✓ Advantage

✗ Disadvantage

Works on irregular shapes Stack overflow on large regions

Easy to implement Fails if boundary is multi-colored

2. Flood-Fill (Recursive)

Used when region is defined by a uniform **interior color** (e.g., paint bucket tool).

Steps:

1. Start at seed, record **Old_Color**
2. If pixel $\neq$ **Old_Color** OR already = **New_Color** → stop
3. Else: paint with **New_Color**, recurse on neighbors

✓ Advantage

✗ Disadvantage

No boundary color needed Stack overflow risk

Natural stopping condition Cannot fill gradients

3. Scanline Fill (Optimized Polygon Fill)

We represent a polygonal region in terms of a sequence of vertices $V_1, V_2, V_3, \dots$, that are connected by edges $E_1, E_2, E_3, \dots$ (see Fig. 3-19). We assume that each vertex V_i has already been scan-converted to integer coordinates (x_i, y_i) .

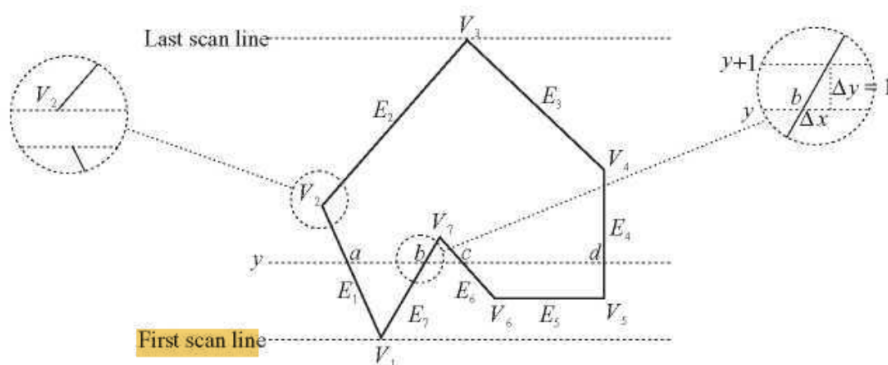


Fig. 3-19 Scan-converting a polygonal region.

Fig. 3-19: Scan-converting a polygonal region.

Table 3-1 An edge list.

Edge	$y_{\min}$	$y_{\max}$	x coordinate of vertex with $y = y_{\min}$	$1/m$
E_1	y_1	$y_2 - 1$	x_1	$1/m_1$
E_7	y_1	y_7	x_1	$1/m_7$
E_4	y_5	$y_4 - 1$	x_5	$1/m_4$
E_6	y_6	y_7	x_6	$1/m_6$
E_2	y_2	y_3	x_2	$1/m_2$
E_3	y_4	y_3	x_4	$1/m_3$

Table 3-1: An edge list for scanline fill.

Fills row-by-row using the polygon's geometric edge data. Eliminates recursion.

Core Concepts:

Concept	Explanation
Sweeping Scanline	Process one horizontal line at a time, bottom to top
Vertex Problem	Fix: shorten lower edge by 1 ($y_{\max} - 1$) at monotonic vertices
Horizontal Rule	Ignore horizontal edges
Edge Activation Rule	Edge is active from $y_{\min}$ up to (but not including) $y_{\max}$; it is deactivated/removed after the scanline at $y_{\max}$ is processed.
Odd-Even Rule	Fill pixels between paired intersection points
Edge Coherence	$x_{\text{new}} = x_{\text{old}} + \frac{1}{m}$ — no recalculation per row

Algorithm Steps:

1. **Build Edge Table (ET):** For each non-horizontal edge compute $y_{\min}$, $y_{\max}$, x , $\frac{1}{m}$; apply $y_{\max}-1$ rule; sort by $y_{\min}$
2. **Initialize:** $y = \min(y_{\min})$
3. **Update AEL:** Move edges with $y_{\min} = y$ into Active Edge List
4. **Sort AEL** by x (left to right)
5. **Fill:** Pair edges (0&1, 2&3, ...); fill between each pair
6. **Remove** edges where $y_{\max} = y$
7. **Increment:** $y = y + 1$; update $x_{\text{new}} = x + \frac{1}{m}$ for remaining AEL edges

8. **Repeat** until ET and AEL are empty

Worked Example — Q2(b): Vertices $(-4,0), (0,2), (4,0), (2,4), (6,4), (0,8), (-6,4), (-4,4)$

Step 1 — Form edges and discard horizontal ones:

Edge	From → To	Horizontal?
E1	$(-4,0) \rightarrow (0,2)$	No — keep
E2	$(0,2) \rightarrow (4,0)$	No — keep
E3	$(4,0) \rightarrow (2,4)$	No — keep
E4	$(2,4) \rightarrow (6,4)$	Yes — discard
E5	$(6,4) \rightarrow (0,8)$	No — keep
E6	$(0,8) \rightarrow (-6,4)$	No — keep
E7	$(-6,4) \rightarrow (-4,4)$	Yes — discard
E8	$(-4,4) \rightarrow (-4,0)$	No — keep

Step 2 — Compute ET values using $\frac{1}{m} = \frac{x_2 - x_1}{y_2 - y_1}$:

- **E1** $(-4,0) \rightarrow (0,2)$: $y_{\min}=0, y_{\max}=2, x=-4, \frac{1}{m} = \frac{0 - (-4)}{2 - 0} = \frac{4}{2} = 2$
- **E2** $(0,2) \rightarrow (4,0)$: $y_{\min}=0, y_{\max}=2, x=4, \frac{1}{m} = \frac{4 - 0}{0 - 2} = \frac{4}{-2} = -2$
- **E3** $(4,0) \rightarrow (2,4)$: $y_{\min}=0, y_{\max}=4, x=4, \frac{1}{m} = \frac{2 - 4}{4 - 0} = \frac{-2}{4} = -0.5$
- **E5** $(6,4) \rightarrow (0,8)$: $y_{\min}=4, y_{\max}=8, x=6, \frac{1}{m} = \frac{0 - 6}{8 - 4} = \frac{-6}{4} = -1.5$
- **E6** $(0,8) \rightarrow (-6,4)$: $y_{\min}=4, y_{\max}=8, x=-6, \frac{1}{m} = \frac{-6 - 0}{4 - 8} = \frac{-6}{-4} = 1.5$
- **E8** $(-4,4) \rightarrow (-4,0)$: $y_{\min}=0, y_{\max}=4, x=-4, \frac{1}{m} = \frac{-4 - (-4)}{0 - 4} = \frac{0}{-4} = 0$

Step 3 — Final Edge Table (sorted by $y_{\min}$):

Edge	$y_{\min}$	$y_{\max}$	x at $y_{\min}$	$1/m$
E1	0	2	-4	2
E2	0	2	4	-2
E3	0	4	4	-0.5
E8	0	4	-4	0
E5	4	8	6	-1.5
E6	4	8	-6	1.5

Step 4 — Initialize: $y = 0$ (smallest $y_{\min}$)

Scanline $y = 0$:

- AEL: add E1, E2, E3, E8 (all have $y_{\min} = 0$)
- Sort AEL by x : -4 (E8), -4 (E1), 4 (E3), 4 (E2)
- Pair (E8, E1) $\rightarrow$ fill from -4 to -4 $\rightarrow$ zero width, **no fill**
- Pair (E3, E2) $\rightarrow$ fill from 4 to 4 $\rightarrow$ zero width, **no fill**
- No edges have $y_{\max} = 0$, so none are removed
- Update x values: $x_{\text{new}} = x_{\text{old}} + \frac{1}{m}$

Edge	Old x	$\frac{1}{m}$	New x
E1	-4	2	$-4 + 2 = -2$
E2	4	-2	$4 + (-2) = 2$
E3	4	-0.5	$4 + (-0.5) = 3.5$
E8	-4	0	$-4 + 0 = -4$

Scanline $y = 1$:

- No new edges enter AEL
- AEL sorted by updated x : -4 (E8), -2 (E1), 2 (E2), 3.5 (E3)
- Pair (E8, E1) $\rightarrow$ **fill from $x = -4$ to $x = -2$ ✓**
- Pair (E2, E3) $\rightarrow$ **fill from $x = 2$ to $x = 3.5$ ✓**
- Update x values:

Edge	Old x	$\frac{1}{m}$	New x
E1	-2	2	$-2 + 2 = 0$
E2	2	-2	$2 + (-2) = 0$
E3	3.5	-0.5	$3.5 - 0.5 = 3$
E8	-4	0	$-4 + 0 = -4$

Scanline $y = 2$:

- Remove E1 and E2 ($y_{\max} = 2 = y$)
- AEL now: E3, E8 (sorted: -4 , 3)
- **Fill from $x = -4$ to $x = 3$ ✓**
- Update:

Edge	Old x	$\frac{1}{m}$	New x
E3	3	-0.5	$3 - 0.5 = 2.5$
E8	-4	0	-4

Scanline $y = 3$:

- AEL: E3, E8 (sorted: -4 , 2.5)

- **Fill from $x = -4$ to $x = 2.5$ ✓**
- Update: $E3 \rightarrow 2.5 - 0.5 = 2$; $E8 \rightarrow -4$

Scanline $y = 4$:

- Remove $E3$ and $E8$ ($y_{\max} = 4 = y$)
- Add $E5$ and $E6$ from ET ($y_{\min} = 4$)
- AEL: $E5$ ($x=6$), $E6$ ($x=-6$) $\rightarrow$ sorted: $-6, 6$
- **Fill from $x = -6$ to $x = 6$ ✓**
- Update: $E5 \rightarrow 6 - 1.5 = 4.5$; $E6 \rightarrow -6 + 1.5 = -4.5$

(Continue similarly for $y = 5, 6, 7$ until $y = 8$ where $E5$ and $E6$ are removed and both ET and AEL are empty.)



Advantage



Disadvantage

No recursion

ET and AEL maintenance overhead

Fast via edge coherence

AEL re-sort needed when edges cross

Handles concave polygons & holes

Common Mistakes:

- Including horizontal edges in ET
- Forgetting to sort AEL by x each scanline
- Calculating $\frac{1}{m}$ as $\frac{\Delta y}{\Delta x}$ instead of $\frac{\Delta x}{\Delta y}$
- Forgetting $y_{\max} - 1$ rule at monotonic vertices

Anti-Aliasing

Aliasing Artifacts

- Visual distortions caused by approximating continuous objects with discrete pixels.

Artifact	Description
Staircase (Jaggies)	Jagged edges on diagonal lines/curves
Unequal Brightness	Diagonals appear dimmer than horizontal/vertical lines. Because distance between two diagonal pixel is larger
Picket Fence Problem	When an object does not fit into, the pixel grid properly
Edge Flickering	Edge vibrate during animation
Moire Pattern	Interference occur when high frequency texture are sampled

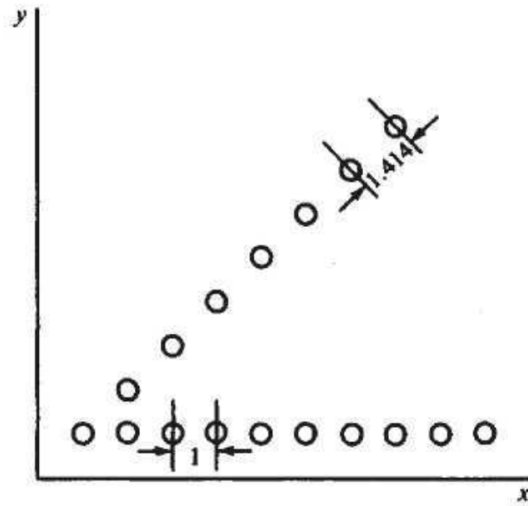


Fig. 3-23

Fig.: Unequal Brightness

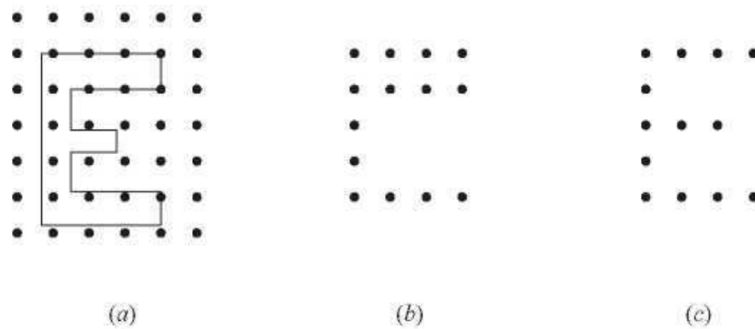


Fig. 3-25 Scan-converting an outline font.

Fig.: Picket Fence Problem with the outline font.

Suppose we want to scan-convert the uppercase character "E" in (a) from its outline description to a bitmap consisting of pixels inside the region defined by the outline. The result in (b) exhibits both asymmetry (the upper arm of the character is twice as thick as the other parts) and dropout (the middle arm is absent). A slight adjustment and/or realignment of the outline can lead to a reasonable outcome (c).

. Why Anti-Aliasing is Needed

- Simply increasing resolution reduces jaggedness but **requires a lot of memory and processing**.
- Anti-aliasing **smooths edges without increasing resolution**, making images appear natural.

. Main Anti-Aliasing Techniques with Examples

A. Pre-Filtering

- Works **before converting to pixels**.
- Each pixel's color is set **based on how much of it is covered by the object**.

Example:

- Pixel partially covered by a white line:

Coverage = 50% (0.5)

Object color = White (1)

Background color = Black (0)

Pixel color = $1 \times 0.5 + 0 \times 0.5 = 0.5 \rightarrow$ gray

- Fully inside pixel $\rightarrow$ full white, outside $\rightarrow$ black.

Result: Smooth edge; shape remains sharp in the center.

B. Supersampling (Post-Filtering)

- Each pixel is divided into **subpixels** (e.g., 3×3).
- Count subpixels inside the object $\rightarrow$ average their colors $\rightarrow$ final pixel color.

Example:

- Pixel divided into $3 \times 3 = 9$ subpixels
- 6 subpixels are inside a line $\rightarrow$ coverage = $6/9 \approx 0.67$
- Object color = white (1), background = black (0)
- Pixel color = $1 \times 0.67 + 0 \times 0.33 = 0.67 \rightarrow$ gray

Visual Idea:

[• • •]

[• o o]

[o o o]

- • = subpixel inside object
- o = subpixel outside object
- Coverage = $6/9 \rightarrow$ pixel color 0.67 (blended)

Result: Smooth diagonal lines and edges.

C. Pixel Phasing

- Hardware-based: shifts pixels **slightly from their normal positions** to align with true line/contour.
- Reduces stair-step effect without blurring edges.

Example:

- A diagonal line across a pixel grid may look jagged.

- Pixel positions are shifted **fractionally toward the line**, so the line looks smoother.

Visual Idea (simplified):

Before: After:

• 0 • •

0 • 0 •

- Line edges appear aligned → stair-step effect minimized.

D. Gray-Level / Color Blending

- Uses **intermediate shades or colors** between object and background.
- Only edge pixels are blended, making transitions smooth.

Example:

- White line on black background
- Edge pixel = 50% covered → gray
- Edge pixel = 25% covered → dark gray

Visual Idea:

Background → Dark Gray → Gray → White (center of line)

Result: Human eye sees a smooth, continuous line.

In short:

Anti-aliasing tricks your eyes by **blending colors, averaging sub-pixels, or shifting pixels slightly**, so edges appear **smooth and natural**, even on low-resolution screens.

Chapter 4: Two-Dimensional Transformations

Introduction

Transformation is the mathematical process of simulating the spatial manipulation of objects. There are two primary viewpoints for transformations:

1. **Geometric Transformation:** The coordinate system remains stationary, and the object itself is moved or altered.
2. **Coordinate Transformation:** The object remains stationary, and the coordinate system is moved or altered around it.

4.1 Geometric Transformations

This section defines the fundamental operations for manipulating a point $P(x,y)$ to a new position $P'(x',y')$:

- **Translation (T_v):** Displacing an object by a specific distance and direction using a vector.

- $x' = x + t_x$ and $y' = y + t_y$

displacement is given by the vector $\mathbf{v} = t_x \mathbf{I} + t_y \mathbf{J}$, the new object point $P'(x', y')$ can be found by applying the transformation T_v to $P(x, y)$ (see Fig. 4-2).

$$P' = T_v(P)$$

where $x' = x + t_x$ and $y' = y + t_y$.

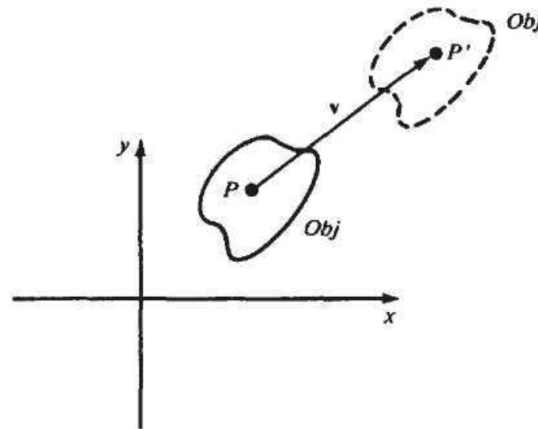


Fig. 4-2

Fig. 4-2: Translation of an object by vector $\vec{v}$, moving point P to P' .

- **Rotation (R_θ):** Rotating an object θ° about the origin. Counterclockwise is positive, and clockwise is negative.

- $x' = x \cos \theta - y \sin \theta$ and $y' = x \sin \theta + y \cos \theta$

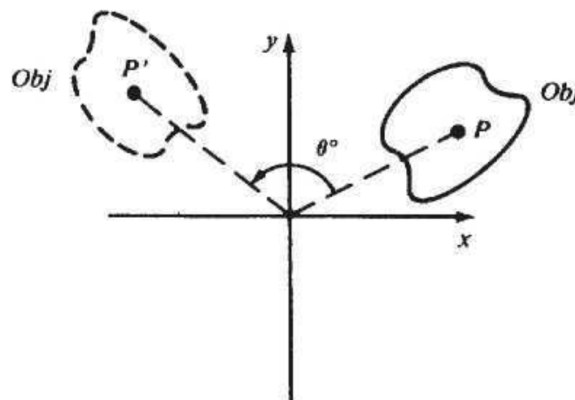


Fig. 4-3

Fig. 4-3: Rotation of an object by θ degrees, moving point P to P' .

- **Scaling (S_{s_x, s_y}):** Expanding or compressing an object using scaling constants s_x and s_y . Only the origin remains fixed. Uniform scaling occurs when $s_x = s_y$.

- $x' = s_x x$ and $y' = s_y y$

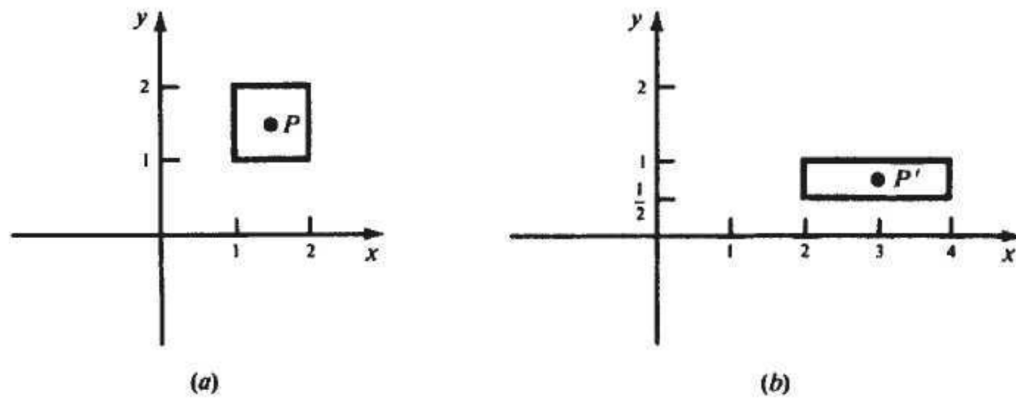


Fig. 4-4

Fig. 4-4: scaling transformation with scaling factors $s_x = 2$ and $s_y = 1/2$.

- **Mirror Reflection (M\$):** Creating a mirrored image of an object across an axis (e.g., about the x-axis: $x' = x$ and $y' = -y$).

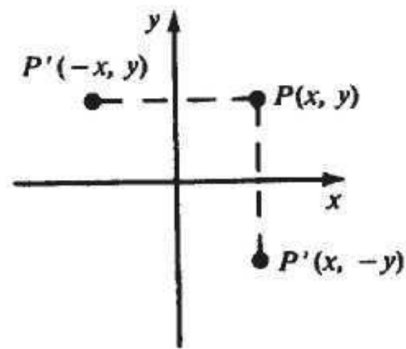


Fig. 4-5

Fig. 4-5: Mirror reflection of a point $P(x, y)$ across the x-axis and y-axis, resulting in $P'(x, -y)$ and $P'(-x, y)$.

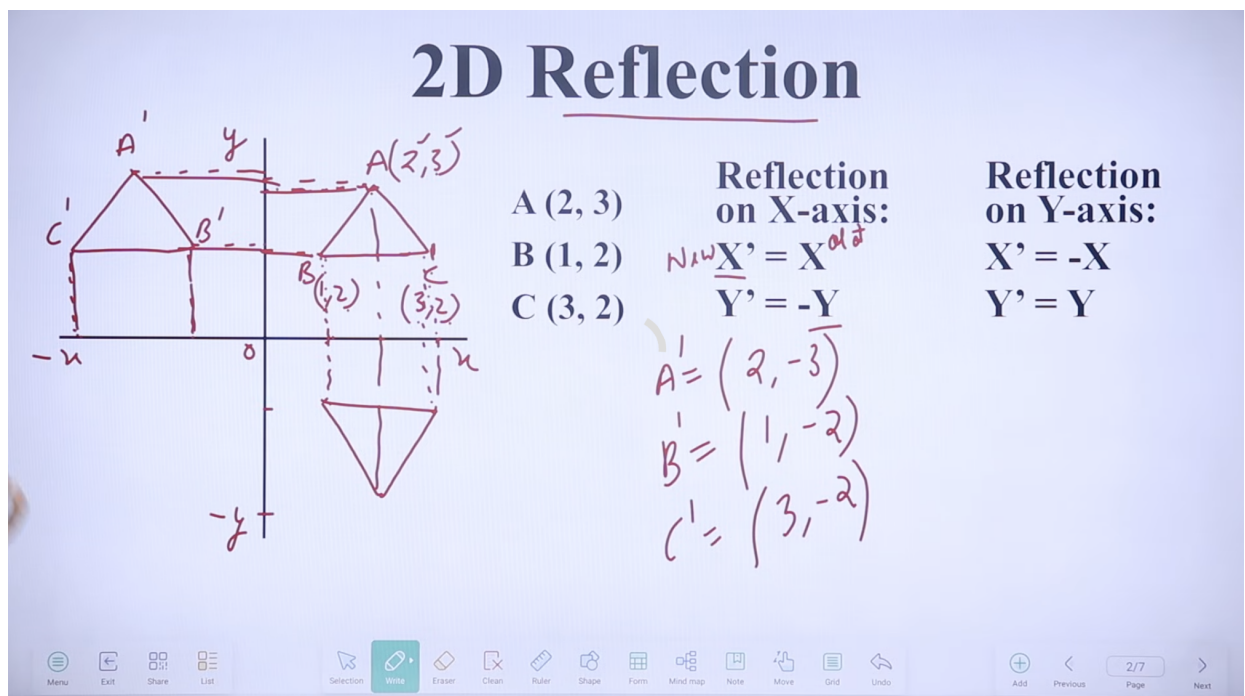


Fig. 4-5b: Example of 2D reflection of a triangle about the x-axis and y-axis, showing coordinate changes and formulas for both axes.

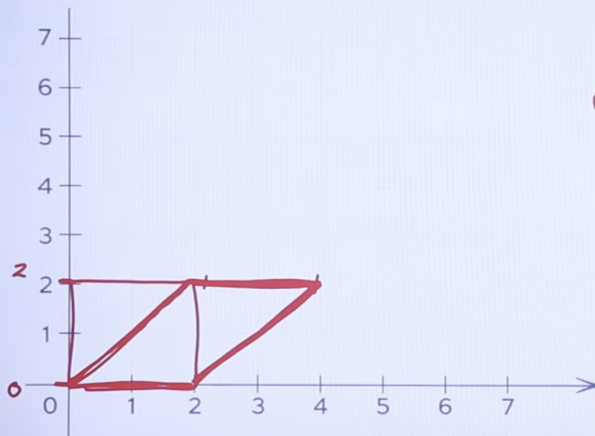
- **Inverse Transformations:** Every geometric transformation has a direct inverse that reverses the operation (e.g., the inverse of translating by v is translating by $-v$).
 - **Translation:** T_{-v} is the inverse of T_v (translation by $-v$ reverses translation by v).
 - **Rotation:** $R_{-\theta}$ is the inverse of R_{θ} (rotation by $-\theta$ undoes rotation by θ).
 - **Scaling:** $S_{1/s_x, 1/s_y}$ is the inverse of S_{s_x, s_y} (scaling by the reciprocal factors undoes the original scaling).
 - **Mirror Reflection:** The inverse of a mirror reflection is itself (applying the same reflection twice returns the object to its original position).

2D Shearing

Shearing is a transformation that slants the shape of an object. It is similar to how normal text becomes italicized. Shearing can be performed along the x-axis or y-axis, and the equations change depending on which axis is being tilted.

2D Shearing

A(3,4), B(2,2), C(4,2)



In X-axis:

$$\begin{aligned} X' &= X + Sh_X * Y \\ Y' &= Y \end{aligned}$$

Handwritten notes: "New = Old" and a diagram showing a point moving horizontally from its original position to its new position.

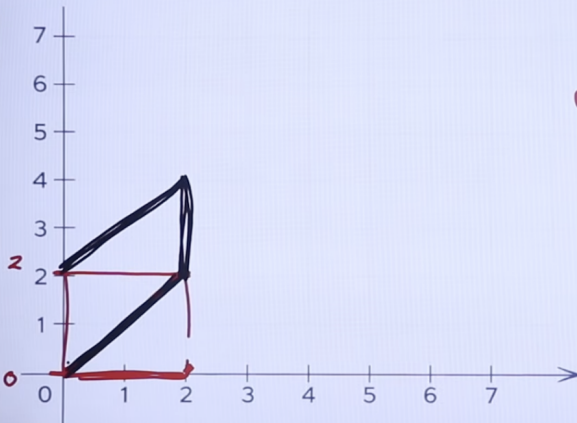
In Y-axis:

$$\begin{aligned} X' &= X \\ Y' &= Y + Sh_Y * X \end{aligned}$$

Fig. 4-6: Shearing a triangle along the X-axis. The x coordinates are updated as $x' = x + Sh_x \cdot y$ while y remains unchanged.

2D Shearing

A(3,4), B(2,2), C(4,2)



In X-axis:

$$\begin{aligned} X' &= X + Sh_X * Y \\ Y' &= Y \end{aligned}$$

Handwritten notes: "New = Old" and a diagram showing a point moving horizontally from its original position to its new position.

In Y-axis:

$$\begin{aligned} X' &= X \\ Y' &= Y + Sh_Y * X \end{aligned}$$

Fig. 4-7: Shearing a triangle along the Y-axis. The y coordinates are updated as $y' = y + Sh_y \cdot x$ while x remains unchanged.

1. Shearing along the X-axis:

- $x' = x + (Sh_x \cdot y)$
- $y' = y$

2. Shearing along the Y-axis:

- $x' = x$
- $y' = y + (Sh_y \cdot x)$

Key Point: The axis not mentioned in the question is the one that remains fixed.

Practical Example:

Given triangle vertices $A(3,4)$, $B(2,2)$, $C(4,2)$:

For X-axis Shearing ($Sh_x = 1$):

- $A': x' = 3 + (1 \times 4) = 7 \rightarrow (7, 4)$
- $B': x' = 2 + (1 \times 2) = 4 \rightarrow (4, 2)$
- $C': x' = 4 + (1 \times 2) = 6 \rightarrow (6, 2)$

For Y-axis Shearing ($Sh_y = 1$):

- $A': y' = 4 + (1 \times 3) = 7 \rightarrow (3, 7)$
- $B': y' = 2 + (1 \times 2) = 4 \rightarrow (2, 4)$
- $C': y' = 2 + (1 \times 4) = 6 \rightarrow (4, 6)$

The core takeaway: Identify which axis is fixed and apply the corresponding formula.

4.2 Coordinate Transformations

Instead of modifying the object's points, a new coordinate system ($x'y'$) is defined relative to the old one (xy). Transformations (translation, rotation, scaling, and reflection) are applied to the axes, which inversely affects the coordinate descriptions of the stationary points.

4.3 Composite Transformations & Homogeneous Coordinates

- **Composition:** Complex transformations are built by stringing together basic transformations. For example, to magnify an object while keeping its center $C(h,k)$ fixed, you must: (1) Translate the object so C is at the origin, (2) Scale it, and (3) Translate it back to its original position.
- **Matrix Representation:** Rotation, scaling, and reflection can be represented as 2×2 matrices, but translation cannot.
- **Homogeneous Coordinates:** To allow all transformations (including translation) to be treated as matrix multiplications, points are represented as 3D vectors $[x, y, 1]^T$, and transformations are upgraded to **3×3 matrices**.
- **Composite Transformation Matrix (CTM):** Because all basic transformations are now 3×3 matrices, they can be multiplied (concatenated) together into a single CTM, which is highly computationally efficient.

4.4 Instance Transformations

- **Instances:** A complex picture often uses the same object multiple times (e.g., a wheel on a car). An object is defined once in its own local coordinate system, and an **instance transformation** converts those local coordinates into the master "picture" coordinates. This typically involves scaling, rotating, and translating the object into its proper place.

- **Multilevel/Nested Structures:** Objects can be made of sub-objects (e.g., apples on a branch, branch on a tree). To render these efficiently, instance transformations are concatenated across levels so that the lowest-level object is transformed directly into the final picture coordinates in one step.

Here is an exam-oriented summary of Chapter 5, which focuses on selecting and mapping a portion of a 2D scene onto a display device, along with the algorithms required to trim objects that fall outside the viewing area.

Chapter 5: Two-Dimensional Viewing and Clipping

Introduction to Viewing

- **World Coordinate System (WCS):** The master coordinate system where the entire scene is modeled.
- **Window:** A rectangular region in the WCS used to select the specific portion of the scene to be displayed.
- **Normalized Device Coordinate System (NDCS):** A device-independent coordinate system (typically a 1×1 unit square) that represents the virtual display area.
- **Viewport:** A specific rectangular sub-region within the NDCS where the contents of the window are mapped.
- **Viewing Transformation:** The overall process of mapping coordinates from the WCS to the physical device. It involves two steps: **Window-to-Viewport mapping** (WCS to NDCS) and **Workstation transformation** (NDCS to actual device/pixel coordinates).

5.1 Window-to-Viewport Mapping

- This mapping translates and scales coordinates (wx, wy) from the window to coordinates (vx, vy) in the viewport.
- It operates on the principle of maintaining relative placement (e.g., if a point is dead center in the window, it must be dead center in the viewport).
- **Geometric Distortion:** Occurs if the aspect ratio (width-to-height ratio) of the window does not match the aspect ratio of the viewport, causing objects to stretch or compress.

5.2 & 5.3 Point and Line Clipping

Clipping is the process of eliminating objects or portions of objects that lie outside the viewing window.

- **Point Clipping:** Simply evaluates if a point's coordinates satisfy $x_{\min} \leq x \leq x_{\max}$ and $y_{\min} \leq y \leq y_{\max}$.
- **Cohen-Sutherland Line Clipping:**
 - Assigns a **4-bit region code** (Top, Bottom, Right, Left) to each endpoint of a line based on its position relative to the window. (e.g., 0000 means inside).
 - *Trivial Accept:* If both codes are 0000, the line is fully visible.
 - *Trivial Reject:* If the bitwise logical AND of the two codes is not 0000, the line is completely outside.
 - *Candidate:* If neither, the line intersects a boundary. The algorithm iteratively finds the intersection point, clips the outside portion, and re-evaluates the new endpoint's code.
- **Midpoint Subdivision Line Clipping:**

- Uses a binary search approach. A line spanning the boundary is repeatedly bisected at its midpoint into two segments. Segments are categorized using region codes until they are reduced to pixel-sized visible fragments or discarded as invisible.
- **Liang-Barsky Line Clipping:**
 - A highly efficient algorithm based on the **parametric equation of a line** ($x = x_1 + \Delta x \cdot u$, $y = y_1 + \Delta y \cdot u$, for $0 \leq u \leq 1$).
 - It calculates the intersection parameter u for all four window boundaries. It tracks the maximum entering u value and the minimum exiting u value to determine the visible segment of the line.

5.4 Polygon Clipping

- **Sutherland-Hodgman Algorithm:**
 - A pipeline approach that clips an entire polygon against one window boundary edge at a time.
 - For each polygon edge, it evaluates 4 cases: (1) Both ends inside $\rightarrow$ output 2nd point. (2) Both outside $\rightarrow$ output nothing. (3) Inside to outside $\rightarrow$ output intersection point. (4) Outside to inside $\rightarrow$ output intersection, then 2nd point.
 - *Drawback:* Can produce unwanted "extraneous edges" connecting disjoint parts when a concave polygon is clipped into multiple pieces.
- **Weiler-Atherton Algorithm:**
 - Solves the extraneous edge problem.
 - It works by tracing the border of the subject polygon. When the border exits the clipping window, the algorithm makes a "right turn" to trace the clipping window's border instead. When it re-enters, it turns back to trace the subject polygon. This creates perfectly closed sub-polygons for output.

5.5 The 2D Graphics Pipeline & Animation Concepts

- **The Pipeline:** Data flows through sequential stages: *Object Definition $\rightarrow$ Modeling Transformation $\rightarrow$ Viewing Transformation $\rightarrow$ Scan Conversion $\rightarrow$ Frame Buffer Display*.
- **Panning & Zooming:** Panning is achieved by translating the window across the WCS. Zooming is achieved by decreasing (zoom in) or increasing (zoom out) the size of the window relative to the viewport.
- **Double Buffering:** An animation technique using two frame buffers. The system displays one buffer while drawing the next frame invisibly in the second buffer. Once drawn, the buffers are swapped to eliminate screen flicker.
- **Lookup Table Animation:** Also known as color cycling. Instead of redrawing an object to move it, the object is pre-drawn in multiple frames. The lookup table is then updated sequentially to change the colors of the frames from "background color" to "visible color", simulating fast, smooth motion.

Chapter 6: Three-Dimensional Transformations

Introduction

Moving from 2D to 3D graphics requires manipulating objects in three-dimensional space. Just like in 2D, this is achieved through transformations, but it requires upgrading from 3×3 to **4×4 homogeneous coordinate matrices** so that translation, scaling, and rotation can all be combined via matrix multiplication.

6.1 Geometric Transformations

This perspective assumes the coordinate system remains stationary while the object itself is moved.

- **Translation:** Displacing an object by a given distance and direction, prescribed by a 3D vector $V = aI + bJ + cK$. In 4×4 matrix form, the displacement values a , b , and c occupy the rightmost column.
- **Scaling:** Expanding or compressing an object with respect to the origin using three scale factors: s_x , s_y , and s_z . If the scale factor $s > 1$, it is a magnification; if $s < 1$, it is a reduction.
- **Rotation:** 3D rotation is significantly more complex than 2D rotation. While 2D rotation only requires an angle and a center point, 3D rotation requires an angle (θ) and an **axis of rotation**.
 - *Canonical Rotations:* These are rotations around one of the standard positive coordinate axes (the x-axis, y-axis, or z-axis). The direction of a positive angle is determined by the right-hand rule with respect to the axis of rotation.
 - *Arbitrary Axis Rotation:* Rotating an object around a non-standard axis requires a sequence of transformations: translating the object to the origin, rotating the axis so it aligns with a standard axis (like the z-axis), performing the desired rotation, and then applying the inverse operations to place the object back.

6.2 Coordinate Transformations

This perspective assumes the object remains perfectly stationary while the observer (or the coordinate system) is moved around it.

- Calculating the new coordinates of an object relative to the shifted observer is mathematically equivalent to applying the **inverse** geometric transformation to the object. (e.g., If the observer moves 5 units forward, it is mathematically identical to the object moving 5 units backward).

6.3 Composite Transformations

- Complex movements are built by stringing together basic transformations (translation, scaling, and rotation) through a process called **composition of functions**, which in computer graphics is handled via matrix multiplication (concatenation).
- Because 3D transformations use 4×4 matrices, they can all be seamlessly multiplied together to form a single Composite Transformation Matrix (CTM), allowing complex multi-step manipulations to be calculated in a single mathematical step.

6.4 Instance Transformations

- In complex 3D scenes, an object (like a chair) is typically modeled only once in its own local "object coordinate space."

- To place multiple copies (instances) of this chair into a master "scene coordinate space," an **instance transformation** is applied. This is a specific composite transformation matrix that scales, rotates, and translates the generic chair into its specific final position, size, and orientation within the room.